

# Lecture Notes in Analysis II

Aniruddha Madhava

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## Contents

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# Lecture 1: Normed Linear Spaces and Completeness

## Key Topics:

(1) Linear Spaces, (2) Norms, (3) Normed Linear Spaces, (4) Banach Spaces

## Summary:

In this lecture, we will define the notion of a *norm* on a linear space  $X$ , investigate the convergence of sequences in normed linear spaces, and define what it means for a normed linear space to be complete (or *Banach*). We will also look at a few examples.

## Lecture:

- **Def. (Normed Linear Space)** Let  $X$  be a linear space over some field  $K$ . A *norm* on  $X$  is a map  $\|\cdot\| : X \rightarrow [0, \infty)$  with the following properties:

- (1)  $\|x\| \geq 0$  for all  $x \in X$ , with equality iff  $x = 0$  (positivity)
- (2)  $\|x + y\| \leq \|x\| + \|y\|$  for all  $x, y \in X$  (triangle inequality)
- (3)  $\|cx\| = |c| \|x\|$  for all  $c \in K$ ,  $x \in X$  (homogeneity).

- **Ex. 0. (Norms on Euclidean Space)** Let  $X = \mathbb{R}^n$ . There exist various different norms on  $X$ :

- (1) (Euclidean Norm): Let  $x \in X$ , and define the map  $\|\cdot\| : X \rightarrow [0, \infty)$  as follows:

$$\|x\| = \left( \sum_1^n |x_i|^2 \right)^{1/2}. \quad (1)$$

(Note that this is the  $\ell^2$ -norm).

- (2) ( $\ell^p$ -Norms): Let  $1 \leq p < \infty$ . Then the map  $\|\cdot\|_p : X \rightarrow [0, \infty)$  defined by

$$\|x\|_p = \left( \sum_1^n |x_i|^p \right)^{1/p} \quad (2)$$

is a norm on  $X$ ; note that the same map for  $p < 1$  is *not* a norm since the triangle inequality is not satisfied. Indeed, for  $p < 1$ ,  $\|x + y\|_p \geq \|x\|_p + \|y\|_p$ .

- (3) ( $\ell^\infty$ -Norm): For  $p = \infty$ , let  $\|\cdot\|_\infty : X \rightarrow [0, \infty)$  be the map defined by

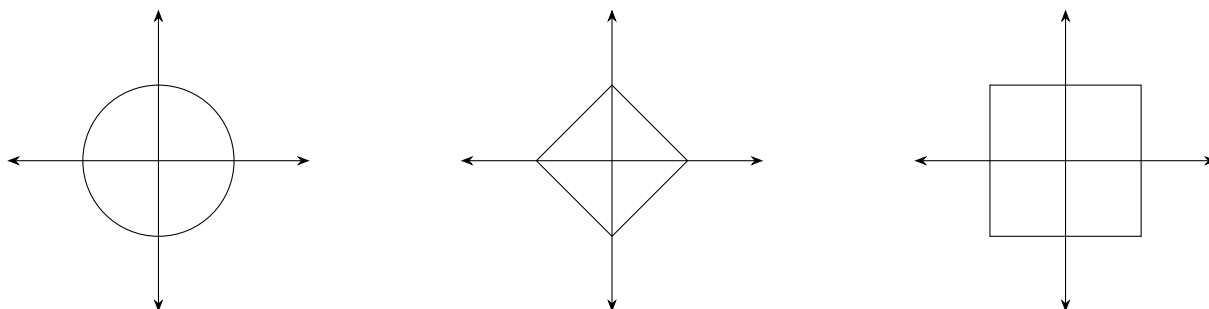
$$\|x\|_\infty = \max_{1 \leq i \leq n} |x_i|. \quad (3)$$

The shape of the unit ball in  $\mathbb{R}^n$  depends on the norm we consider. For instance, when  $n = 2$ , Figure 1 shows the possible shapes.

- **Ex. 1. ( $L^1$ -Norms)** Let  $X = C^\infty([0, 1])$ . For  $f \in X$ , define  $\|f\| = \int_0^1 |f| \, dx$ . Then this is the  $L^1$ -norm on  $X$ .
- **Ex. 2. (Polynomial Norms)** Let  $X$  be the set of all finite-degree polynomials in one variable. Then define a norm on  $X$  as follows: for each  $P = \sum_0^n a_i x^i \in X$ , let

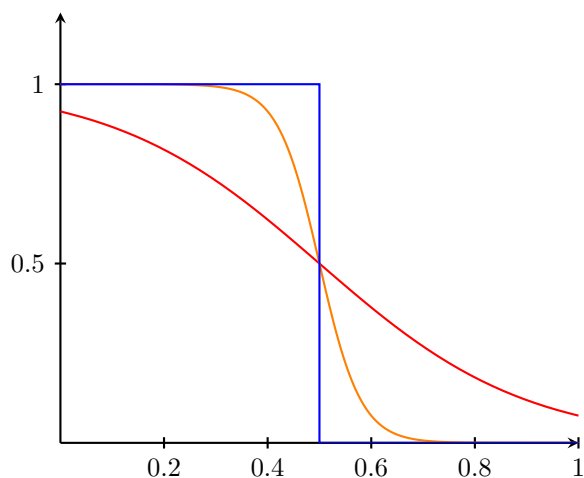
$$\|P\| = \sum_0^n |a_i|. \quad (4)$$

- **Def. (Cauchy Sequences)** Let  $(X, \|\cdot\|)$  be a normed linear space. A sequence is a function  $\mathbb{N} \rightarrow X$ , and is denoted by  $\{x_n\}_1^\infty = (x_1, x_2, \dots)$ . A sequence is said to be *Cauchy* iff  $\|x_n - x_m\| \rightarrow 0$  as  $n, m \rightarrow \infty$ .



**Figure 1:** Unit ball in  $\mathbb{R}^2$  in different norms: from left to right, (a) Euclidean norm, (b)  $\ell^1$ -norm, (c)  $\ell_\infty$ -norm.

- **Def. (Complete Space)** Let  $X$  be a normed linear space.  $X$  is said to be complete if every Cauchy sequence in  $X$  converges in  $X$ .
- **Ex. 0. (Finite-Dimensional Normed Spaces)** Every finite-dimensional normed linear space is complete.
- **Ex. 1. ( $C^\infty([0, 1])$  is Incomplete)** Let  $X = C^\infty([0, 1])$ , and let  $X$  have the  $L^1$ -norm. Then  $(X, \|\cdot\|_1)$  is incomplete. Intuitively, this is because non-smooth functions can be uniformly approximated by smooth functions:



**Figure 2:** Approximation of a non-smooth function by smooth functions. Note that the red function should be supported in  $[0, 1]$ .

- **Ex. 2. (Discrete Space is Incomplete)** Let  $X$  be the space of real-valued sequences that only have finitely many nonzero terms. Define the norm  $\|\{a_n\}\| := \sum |a_n|$ . Then  $(X, \|\cdot\|)$  is incomplete.

## Lecture 3: The Hahn-Banach Theorem

### Addendum: Extra Applications of the Hahn-Banach Theorem

- **Exc. (Extensions of Bounded Linear Operators)** Let  $X$  and  $Y$  be Banach spaces, and let  $M \subset X$  be a closed subspace. Let  $S : M \rightarrow Y$  be a bounded linear operator. Show that:
  - (1) if  $\dim Y < \infty$ , there exists an extension of  $S$  to a bounded linear operator  $T : X \rightarrow Y$ ,
  - (2) if  $\dim M < \infty$  or  $\operatorname{codim}(M) < \infty$  or  $X$  is a Hilbert space, there exists a extension of  $S$  to a bounded linear operator  $T : X \rightarrow Y$ .

## Lecture 4: Weak and Strong Convergence

### Key Topics:

(1) Weak and Strong Convergence, (2) Compactness of the Unit Ball, (3) Riesz's Theorem, (4) Kakutani's Theorem

### Summary:

In this lecture, we will see a couple of different compactness results. In particular, we will study strong and weak compactness, and show that strong compactness is, in general, impossible to attain. We will see applications of these convergence types to the unit ball and reflexive spaces.

### Lecture:

- **Thm. (Riesz's Theorem)** Let  $X$  be a normed linear space. Then the unit ball  $\{x \in X : \|x\| \leq 1\}$  is compact if and only if  $\dim(X) < \infty$ .

( $\Leftarrow$ ) Suppose  $X$  is a finite-dimensional space. In HW 2, we showed that every norm on  $X$  is equivalent, and so is equivalent to the Euclidean norm. This means that the induced topology is the same as the Euclidean topology on  $X$ . Then since the unit sphere is closed and bounded in the Euclidean norm, by the Heine-Borel Theorem<sup>1</sup>, we conclude that the unit sphere is compact.

( $\Rightarrow$ ) Suppose that  $\dim(X) = \infty$ . We wish to show that the unit sphere is not compact; since  $X$  is a normed (hence, metric) space, equivalence of sequential compactness and compactness implies it is sufficient to find a sequence with no convergent subsequence. In particular, we will construct a sequence  $\{x_j\} \subseteq \{\|x\| \leq 1\}$  so that  $\|x_j - x_k\| \geq \frac{1}{2}$  for all  $j \neq k$ . We proceed by induction. Choose  $x_1 \in X$  with  $\|x_1\| = 1$ . Suppose that we have chosen  $x_1, \dots, x_n$  with  $\|x_j\| \leq 1$  for all  $j = 1, 2, \dots, n$ , and  $\|x_j - x_k\| \geq \frac{1}{2}$  for  $j \neq k$ . Let  $P = \text{span}\{x_1, \dots, x_n\}$ . Since  $P \subsetneq X$ , there exists some  $y_{n+1} \in X \setminus P$  so that  $\|y_{n+1}\| \leq \frac{1}{4}$ . Let  $\delta$  be the distance between  $y_{n+1}$  and  $P$ :

$$\delta = \inf_{x \in P} \|y_{n+1} - x\| > 0. \quad (5)$$

In particular, there exists some  $x_* \in P$  so that  $\|y_{n+1} - x_*\| \leq (11/10)\delta$ . Define the element

$$x_{n+1} = \frac{1}{2} \cdot \frac{y_{n+1} - x_*}{\delta}. \quad (6)$$

We observe the following:

- (i)  $\|x_{n+1}\| = \frac{1}{2\delta} \|y_{n+1} - x_*\| \leq \frac{1}{2\delta} \cdot \frac{11\delta}{10} = \frac{11}{20} < 1$ . Hence,  $x_{n+1} \in \{\|x\| \leq 1\}$ .
- (ii) For any  $j \leq n$ ,

$$\|x_{n+1} - x_j\| = \left\| \frac{y_{n+1} - (x_* + 2\delta x_j)}{2\delta} \right\| \geq \frac{\delta}{2\delta} = \frac{1}{2}, \quad (7)$$

where the inequality follows from the fact that  $x_* + 2\delta x_j \in P$ .

Hence, we continue building  $\{x_j\}$  in this way; by construction, this sequence has no convergent subsequence, which proves that the unit ball cannot be compact.

- **Rmk.** Riesz's theorem shows the problem with *strong* convergence. Over the following results, we will demonstrate that *weak* convergence is better for compactness. Our goal is to show that the unit ball is weakly compact in an arbitrary reflexive space.
- **Def. (Weak Convergence)** Let  $X$  be a normed linear space, and  $X^*$  its dual space.  $\{x_n\}_{n=1}^\infty \subseteq X$  converges *weakly* to  $x \in X$  if for all  $\ell \in X^*$ ,  $\ell(x_n)$  converges to  $\ell(x)$ . Let's recall a few results we had from last time ...

<sup>1</sup><http://math.stackexchange.com/questions/4959961/heine-borel-for-finite-dimensional-normed-vector-spaces>

- **Prop. (Norm for Weak Convergence)** Let  $X$  be a normed linear space, and assume  $x_n$  converges to  $x$  weakly. Then the following are true:

- (i)  $\sup_n \|x_n\| < \infty$ ,
- (ii)  $\|x\| \leq \liminf_n \|x_n\|$ .

- (i) Uniform boundedness principle (see Lecture 5)
- (ii) By the Hahn-Banach Theorem, there exists a linear functional  $\ell \in X^*$  with  $\|\ell\| = 1$  so that  $\ell(x) = x$  (this is the second application of the HBT; see Lecture 3). This means that

$$\|x\| = \ell(x) = \lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} \ell(x_n) \leq \|\ell\| \liminf_{n \rightarrow \infty} \|x_n\| = \liminf_{n \rightarrow \infty} \|x_n\|. \quad (8)$$

- **Thm. (Kakutani)** Let  $X$  be a normed linear space. Then  $X$  is reflexive if and only if the unit ball  $\{\|x\| \leq 1\}$  is weakly compact; i.e., if and only if for any sequence  $\{x_n\} \subseteq \{\|x\| \leq 1\}$ , there exists a subsequence  $\{x_{n_k}\}$  and  $x_* \in X$  so that  $x_{n_k}$  converges weakly to  $x_*$  as  $k \rightarrow \infty$ .

Remark: to prove this theorem, we will actually prove a couple of weaker results, and then use these results to attack the main theorem. Also note that the original lecture only focused on the forward direction.

- **Thm. (Weak Kakutani)** Let  $X$  be a reflexive normed linear space and  $X^*$  separable. Then the unit ball  $\{\|x_n\| \leq 1\}$  is weakly compact.

Assume the hypotheses. Since  $X^*$  is separable, there exists a countable dense subset  $\{\ell_n\} \subset X^*$ . Let  $\{x_n\}$  be a subsequence of the unit ball in  $X$ . We will break this proof into a couple of steps.

**(Step 1)** There exists a subsequence  $\{x_{n_j}\}$  such that for all  $k$ ,  $\{\ell_k(x_{n_j})\}$  converges.

This step uses the Cantor diagonalization argument. Consider the sequence  $\{\ell_1(x_{n_j})\}$ . Then since this sequence is uniformly bounded, there exists a subsequence  $\{x_{n_k}^{(1)}\}$  such that  $\{\ell_1(x_{n_k}^{(1)})\}$  converges. Now consider the sequence  $\{\ell_2(x_{n_k}^{(1)})\}$ . Once again, this is a uniformly bounded numerical sequence, and therefore, admits a subsequence  $\{x_{n_k}^{(2)}\}$  so that  $\{\ell_2(x_{n_k}^{(2)})\}$  converges. Moreover, we also know that  $\{\ell_1(x_{n_k}^{(2)})\}$  converges. Repeating this procedure inductively, construct the grid:

$$\begin{array}{cccccc} x_{n_1}^{(1)} & x_{n_2}^{(1)} & x_{n_3}^{(1)} & \cdots & x_{n_k}^{(1)} \\ x_{n_1}^{(2)} & x_{n_2}^{(2)} & x_{n_3}^{(2)} & \cdots & x_{n_k}^{(2)} \\ x_{n_1}^{(3)} & x_{n_2}^{(3)} & x_{n_3}^{(3)} & \cdots & x_{n_k}^{(3)} \\ \vdots & \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots \\ x_{n_1}^{(k)} & \cdots & \cdots & \cdots & x_{n_k}^{(k)} \end{array} \quad (9)$$

Form a sequence by selecting all the diagonal arguments. This is the desired subsequence.

**(Step 2)** Show that this subsequence converges for all  $\ell \in X^*$ .

Let  $\{x_{n_j}\}$  be the sequence one obtains by completing Step 1. Let  $\ell \in X^*$  be arbitrary. Then we claim that  $\{\ell(x_{n_j})\}$  converges:

$$\begin{aligned} |\ell(x_{n_{j_1}}) - \ell(x_{n_{j_2}})| &\leq |(\ell - \ell_k)(x_{n_{j_1}})| + |\ell_k(x_{n_{j_1}}) - \ell_k(x_{n_{j_2}})| + |(\ell - \ell_k)(x_{n_{j_2}})| \\ &\leq 2\|\ell - \ell_k\| + |\ell_k(x_{n_{j_1}}) - \ell_k(x_{n_{j_2}})| \end{aligned} \quad (10)$$

By density of  $\{\ell_k\}$  in  $X^*$ ,  $\|\ell - \ell_k\|$  can be made “arbitrarily small.” On the other hand, taking  $n_{j_1}, n_{j_2} \rightarrow \infty$ , we see by the claim in Step 1 that  $|\ell_k(x_{n_{j_1}}) - \ell_k(x_{n_{j_2}})| \rightarrow 0$ . Hence, it follows that  $\{\ell(x_{n_j})\}$  converges. Since  $\ell \in X^*$  was arbitrary, the proof concludes.

Now, we shall complete the proof of the theorem. Define an element  $m \in X^{**}$  as follows: for every  $\ell \in X^*$ , let

$$m(\ell) := \lim_{n_j \rightarrow \infty} \ell(x_{n_j}). \quad (11)$$

It is straightforward to verify that  $|m(\ell)| \leq \|\ell\|$ . Since  $X$  is reflexive, there exists  $x \in X$  such that  $m(\ell) = \ell(x)$ . In other words,

$$\lim_{j \rightarrow \infty} \ell(x_{n_j}) = \ell(x), \quad \forall \ell \in X^*. \quad (12)$$

Hence, the unit ball is weakly compact.

- **Lem. (Separability of  $X$ )** Let  $X$  be a normed linear space, and  $X^*$  its dual. If  $X^*$  is separable, then  $X$  is separable. This was proven in HW 2.
- **Lem. (Reflexivity of Closed Subspaces)** If  $X$  is reflexive, then any closed subspace  $Y \subset X$  is reflexive.

Our goal is to show that given  $m \in Y^{**}$ , there exists some  $y \in Y$  so that for all  $\ell \in Y^*$ ,  $m(\ell) = \ell(y)$ . Note that the map  $\ell \mapsto \ell|_Y$  defines a map from  $X^*$  to  $Y^*$ . So consider the map  $X^* \ni \ell \mapsto m(\ell|_Y)$ , which defines an element in  $X^*$ . Since  $X$  is reflexive, there exists an  $x_0 \in X$  such that  $m(\ell|_Y) = \ell(x_0)$  for all  $\ell \in X^*$ . We must show the following:

- (1)  $x_0 \in Y$ ;
- (2) for all  $\tilde{\ell} \in Y^*$ ,  $m(\tilde{\ell}) = \tilde{\ell}(x_0)$ .

Let us prove each claim individually.

- (1) Assume to the contrary that  $x_0 \notin Y$ . Then there exists some  $\ell \in X^*$  so that  $\ell|_Y = 0$  and  $\ell(x_0) \neq 0$  (by Hahn-Banach). But this is impossible by the line defining  $x_0$ . Hence,  $x_0 \in Y$ .
- (2) Consider  $\tilde{\ell} \in Y^*$ . Then by Hahn-Banach, we can produce some  $\ell \in X^*$  such that  $\ell|_Y = \tilde{\ell}$ . Hence,  $m(\tilde{\ell}) = m(\ell|_Y) = \ell(x) = \tilde{\ell}(x_0)$ .

Hence, the proof concludes.

- **Prf. (Kakutani)** Now we will use the two preceding lemmas and the weak Kakutani theorem to prove the main theorem. Let  $\{x_n\}_{n=1}^\infty$  be a subsequence of the closed unit ball in  $X$ . Let  $Y = \overline{\text{span}\{x_n\}}$ . Since  $Y$  is a closed subspace of  $X$  and  $X$  is reflexive,  $Y$  is reflexive. On the other hand, since every subspace of a separable metric space is separable,  $Y = (Y^*)^*$  is separable. Hence, in particular,  $Y^*$  is separable by the first lemma. By the weak Kakutani theorem,  $\{\|x\| \leq 1\} \cap Y$  is weakly compact. Hence, there exists a subsequence  $\{x_{n_k}\}$  so that for all  $\ell \in Y^*$ ,  $\ell(x_{n_k}) \rightarrow \ell(x_*)$ . Since for any  $\ell \in X^*$ ,  $\ell|_Y \in Y^*$ , we conclude that

$$\ell(x_{n_k}) = \ell|_Y(x_{n_k}) \longrightarrow \ell|_Y(x_*) = \ell(x_*). \quad (13)$$

This concludes the proof.

## Lecture 5: The Space $\ell^2(\mathbb{R})$ and Hilbert Spaces

### Key Topics:

(1) The space  $\ell^2(\mathbb{R})$ , (2) Precompactness, (3) Inner Products, (4) Hilbert Spaces

### Summary:

In this lecture, we briefly revisit the space  $\ell^2(\mathbb{R})$  and examine various completeness and compactness results for this space. Then we define inner product and Hilbert spaces, and briefly examine some various results (e.g., the Cauchy-Schwarz inequality) for Hilbert spaces.

### Lecture:

- **Prop. ( $\ell^2(\mathbb{R})$  is Reflexive)** The space  $\ell^2(\mathbb{R})$  of all real-valued square summable sequences is reflexive. In particular, the unit ball in this space is weakly compact but not strongly compact.

In Lecture 3, we showed that for every  $f \in (\ell^2(\mathbb{R}))^*$ , there exists a unique sequence  $\{b_n\}_{n=1}^\infty \in \ell^2(\mathbb{R})$  such that

$$f(\{a_n\}) = \sum_{n=1}^{\infty} a_n b_n. \quad (14)$$

Hence,  $(\ell^2(\mathbb{R}))^* \cong \ell^2(\mathbb{R})$ , establishing reflexivity. By Kakutani's theorem from Lecture 4, we conclude that the closed unit ball in  $\ell^2(\mathbb{R})$  is weakly compact. Since  $\ell^2(\mathbb{R})$  is infinite dimensional, by Reisz's Theorem (Lecture 4), the closed unit ball is not strongly compact.

- **Def. (Precompact Subset)** Let  $X$  be a topological space, and  $A$  a subset of  $X$ .  $A$  is said to be *precompact* in  $X$  if and only every sequence in  $A$  has a convergent subsequence, whose limit need not be contained in  $A$ ; i.e.,  $A$  is precompact if and only if its closure  $\bar{A}$  is compact in  $X$ .
- **Prop. (Precompact Subspaces of  $\ell^2(\mathbb{R})$ )** Let  $\mathcal{A} \subseteq \ell^2(\mathbb{R})$ . Then  $\mathcal{A}$  is precompact if and only if the following two conditions hold:

- (1)  $\sup_{\{a_n\} \in \mathcal{A}} \|\{a_n\}\|_{\ell^2} < \infty$  (uniform boundedness)
- (2) for all  $\varepsilon > 0$ , there exists  $N_0 \in \mathbb{Z}^+$  such that for all  $\{a_n\} \in \mathcal{A}$ ,

$$\sum_{n \geq N_0} |a_n|^2 \leq \varepsilon \quad (\text{uniform smallness of the tail}). \quad (15)$$

( $\Rightarrow$ ) Assume  $\mathcal{A}$  is precompact in  $\ell^2(\mathbb{R})$ . Then  $\mathcal{A}$  is bounded:  $\mathcal{A} \subseteq \bar{\mathcal{A}}$ , and every compact subspace of a metric space is bounded. Hence, (1) is trivially satisfied. Now assume to the contrary that condition (2) is not satisfied. This means there exists  $\varepsilon_0 > 0$  such that for all  $k \geq 1$ , there exists a sequence  $\{a_n^{(k)}\} \in \mathcal{A}$  so that

$$\sum_{n \geq k} |a_n^{(k)}|^2 \geq \varepsilon_0. \quad (*)$$

Now, since  $\mathcal{A}$  is precompact,  $\{a_n^{(k)}\}$  has a convergent subsequence, which we denote  $\{a_n^{(k_\ell)}\}$ , where  $\{a_n^{(k_\ell)}\} \rightarrow \{b_n\}$  in  $\ell^2(\mathbb{R})$ . In other words, there exists some “large enough”  $\ell_0$  such that for all  $\ell \geq \ell_0$ ,

$$\sum_{n \geq 1} |a_n^{(k_\ell)} - b_n|^2 \leq \frac{\varepsilon_0}{10}. \quad (16)$$

Since  $\{b_n\} \in \ell^2(\mathbb{R})$ , there exists  $N_0 > 0$  large enough so that

$$\sum_{n \geq N_0} |b_n|^2 \leq \frac{\varepsilon_0}{10}. \quad (17)$$



Therefore,

$$\sum_{n \geq N_0} |a_n^{(k_\ell)}|^2 \leq 4 \sum_{n \geq N_0} |a_n^{(k_\ell)} - b_n|^2 + 4 \sum_{n \geq N_0} |b_n|^2 \leq \frac{4}{5} \varepsilon_0 < \varepsilon_0. \quad (18)$$

Additionally, there also exists  $N_1 > 0$  large enough such that for  $1 \leq \ell \leq \ell_0 - 1$ ,

$$\sum_{n \geq N_1} |a_n^{(k_\ell)}|^2 \leq \frac{\varepsilon_0}{2}. \quad (19)$$

Define  $N = \max\{N_0, N_1\}$ . Then

$$\sum_{n \geq N} |a_n^{(k_\ell)}|^2 < \varepsilon_0, \quad (20)$$

which contradicts (\*).

( $\Leftarrow$ ) Let  $\{a_n^{(k)}\}$  be a sequence in  $\mathcal{A}$ . It suffices to show that this sequence has a convergent subsequence. We complete this proof via a couple of steps:

**(Step 1)**  $\{a_n^{(k_\ell)}\}$  is a convergent subsequence, not necessarily in the  $\ell^2$ -norm. The proof of this statement follows from the uniform boundedness and a Cantor-diagonalization-type argument. Let  $\{a_n^{(k_\ell)}\} \rightarrow \{b_n\}$ .

**(Step 2)**  $\{b_n\} \in \ell^2(\mathbb{R})$ . Indeed, we observe that

$$\sum_{n=1}^N |b_n|^2 = \lim_{N \rightarrow \infty} \sum_{n=1}^N |a_n^{(k_\ell)}|^2 \leq \sup_{k \geq 1} \left\| \{a_n^{(k)}\} \right\|_{\ell^2}^2 < \infty. \quad (21)$$

Letting  $N \rightarrow \infty$ , we obtain  $\{b_n\} \in \ell^2(\mathbb{R})$ .

**(Step 3)** Let  $\varepsilon > 0$ , and choose  $N_0 \in \mathbb{Z}^+$  so that

$$\sum_{n \geq N_0} |a_n^{(k)}|^2 \leq \varepsilon_0, \quad \forall k. \quad (22)$$

Since  $b_n = \lim_{\ell \rightarrow \infty} a_n^{(k_\ell)}$ , we have

$$\sum_{n \geq N_0} |b_n|^2 \leq \liminf_{\ell \rightarrow \infty} \sum_{n \geq N_0} |a_n^{(k_\ell)}|^2 \leq \varepsilon_0. \quad (23)$$

Then we can estimate :

$$\begin{aligned} \sum_{n=1}^{\infty} |a_n^{(k_\ell)} - b_n|^2 &= \sum_{n=1}^{N_0} |a_n^{(k_\ell)} - b_n|^2 + \sum_{n=N_0+1}^{\infty} |a_n^{(k_\ell)} - b_n|^2 \\ &\leq \sum_{n=1}^{N_0} |a_n^{(k_\ell)} - b_n|^2 + 4 \sum_{n=N_0+1}^{\infty} |a_n^{(k_\ell)}|^2 + 4 \sum_{n=N_0+1}^{\infty} |b_n|^2 \\ &\leq \sum_{n=1}^{N_0} |a_n^{(k_\ell)} - b_n|^2 + 8\varepsilon \end{aligned} \quad (24)$$

We know that as  $\ell \rightarrow \infty$ ,  $a_n^{(k_\ell)} \rightarrow b_n$  for each  $n$ . Therefore we get

$$\limsup_{\ell \rightarrow \infty} \sum_{n \geq 1} |a_n^{(k_\ell)} - b_n|^2 \leq 8\varepsilon. \quad (25)$$

Since  $\varepsilon > 0$  was arbitrary, the proof concludes.

- **Def. (Inner Product Spaces)** Let  $\mathcal{H}$  be a linear space. An *inner product*, denoted  $\langle \cdot, \cdot \rangle$  is a map from  $\mathcal{H} \times \mathcal{H} \rightarrow \mathbb{C}$  so that the following properties are satisfied:

- (i)  $\langle \alpha x + \beta y, z \rangle = \alpha \langle x, z \rangle + \beta \langle y, z \rangle$  for all  $x, y, z \in \mathcal{H}$  and  $\alpha, \beta \in \mathbb{C}$ .
- (ii)  $\langle y, x \rangle = \overline{\langle x, y \rangle}$  for all  $x, y \in \mathcal{H}$ .
- (iii)  $\langle x, x \rangle \geq 0$  for all  $x \in \mathcal{H}$ , with equality if and only if  $x = 0$ .

If  $\mathcal{H}$  is a linear space over  $\mathbb{R}$  instead of  $\mathbb{C}$ , then the inner product satisfies the alternate property:

$$(ii') \quad \langle y, x \rangle = \langle x, y \rangle \text{ for all } x, y \in \mathcal{H}.$$

- **Prop. (Cauchy-Schwarz Inequality)** Let  $\mathcal{H}$  be a linear space with an inner product  $\langle \cdot, \cdot \rangle$ . Then for any  $x, y \in \mathcal{H}$ ,  $|\langle x, y \rangle| \leq \sqrt{\langle x, x \rangle \langle y, y \rangle}$ , with equality if and only if  $x$  and  $y$  are linearly dependent.

If  $\langle x, y \rangle = 0$ , then the claim is trivial. So suppose  $\langle x, y \rangle \neq 0$ . Let  $\alpha \in \mathbb{C}$  with  $|\alpha| = 1$  so that if  $z = \alpha y$ . Then

$$\langle x, z \rangle = \langle x, \alpha y \rangle = \bar{\alpha} \langle x, y \rangle = |\langle x, y \rangle|. \quad (26)$$

Then for arbitrary  $t \in \mathbb{R}$ , we compute

$$\begin{aligned} 0 \leq \langle x - tz, x - tz \rangle &= \langle x, x \rangle - 2t\Re \langle x, z \rangle + t^2 \langle z, z \rangle \\ &= \langle x, x \rangle - 2t|\langle x, y \rangle| + t^2 \langle y, y \rangle. \end{aligned} \quad (27)$$

Since this is true for any real  $t$ , taking the discriminant of the quadratic expression in  $t$ , one obtains

$$4|\langle x, y \rangle|^2 - 4\langle x, x \rangle \langle y, y \rangle \leq 0. \quad (28)$$

Hence, the result follows. Suppose that we have equality above. Then there exists  $t_0 \in \mathbb{R}$  such that  $\langle x - t_0 z, x - t_0 z \rangle = 0$ , which is possible iff  $x - t_0 z = 0$  iff  $x = t_0 z = t_0 \alpha y$ . Hence,  $x$  and  $y$  are colinear. This concludes the proof.

- **Def. (Normed Induced by Inner Product)** Let  $\mathcal{H}$  be a linear space with inner product  $\langle \cdot, \cdot \rangle$ . Then the inner product induces a norm on  $\mathcal{H}$  as follows: for any  $x \in \mathcal{H}$ ,  $\|x\| := \sqrt{\langle x, x \rangle}$ .

We will verify that  $\|x\|$  is indeed a norm on  $\mathcal{H}$ .

- (1)  $\|x\| = 0$  iff  $\|x\|^2 = 0$  iff  $\langle x, x \rangle = 0$ . By the properties of an inner product, this is true iff  $x = 0$ . If  $x \neq 0$ , then since  $\langle x, x \rangle > 0$ ,  $\|x\| = \sqrt{\langle x, x \rangle} > 0$ .
- (2) Let  $\lambda \in \mathbb{C}$ . Then

$$\begin{aligned} \|\lambda x\| &= \sqrt{\langle \lambda x, \lambda x \rangle} = \sqrt{\lambda \overline{\lambda} \langle x, x \rangle} \\ &= \sqrt{\lambda \bar{\lambda} \langle x, x \rangle} \\ &= |\lambda| \sqrt{\langle x, x \rangle} = |\lambda| \|x\|. \end{aligned} \quad (29)$$

- (3) Now, we will prove that  $\|\cdot\|$  satisfies the triangle inequality. Let  $x, y \in \mathcal{H}$ . Then

$$\begin{aligned} \|x + y\|^2 &= \langle x + y, x + y \rangle = \langle x, x + y \rangle + \langle y, x + y \rangle \\ &= \overline{\langle x, x \rangle} + \overline{\langle y, x \rangle} + \overline{\langle x, y \rangle} + \overline{\langle y, y \rangle} \\ &= (\|x\|^2 + \|y\|^2) + 2\Re \langle x, y \rangle \\ &\leq (\|x\|^2 + \|y\|^2) + 2\|x\| \|y\| \quad (\text{by Cauchy-Schwarz}) \\ &= (\|x\| + \|y\|)^2. \end{aligned} \quad (30)$$

Taking the square root concludes the proof.

- **Def. (Hilbert Space)** Let  $\mathcal{H}$  be a linear space with inner product  $\langle \cdot, \cdot \rangle$ ; let  $\|\cdot\|$  be the norm on  $\mathcal{H}$  induced by the inner product.  $\mathcal{H}$  is said to be a *Hilbert space* iff it is complete under the induced norm.

- **Ex 0. (Inner Products on  $\mathbb{C}^n$ )** Let  $\mathcal{H} = \mathbb{C}^n$ , and define the inner product  $\langle \cdot, \cdot \rangle : \mathbb{C}^n \times \mathbb{C}^n \rightarrow \mathbb{C}$  as follows

$$\langle x, y \rangle = \sum_{i=1}^n x_i \bar{y}_i. \quad (31)$$

Then  $\mathcal{H}$  is a Hilbert space.

- **Ex 1. (The space  $\ell^2(\mathbb{R})$ )** Consider the space  $\ell^2(\mathbb{R})$ , and define the inner product

$$\langle \{a_n\}, \{b_n\} \rangle := \sum_{n=1}^{\infty} a_n b_n. \quad (32)$$

Then this is an example of a Hilbert space.

## Lecture 6: Hilbert Spaces Cont'd

### Key Topics:

(1) Hilbert Spaces, (2) Cauchy-Schwarz, (3) Riesz Representation Theorem, (4) Inequalities

### Summary:

In this lecture, we continue talking about Hilbert spaces. In particular, we talk about convergence in Hilbert spaces, various inequalities with the inner product, and present/prove the Riesz Representation Theorem.

### Lecture:

- **Prop. (Continuity of the Inner Product)** Let  $\mathcal{H}$  be a Hilbert space with inner product  $\langle \cdot, \cdot \rangle : \mathcal{H} \times \mathcal{H} \rightarrow \mathbb{C}$ . If  $x_n \rightarrow x$  and  $y_n \rightarrow y$ , then  $\langle x_n, y_n \rangle \rightarrow \langle x, y \rangle$ . I.e., the inner product is continuous.

Assume the hypotheses. Then

$$\begin{aligned} |\langle x_n, y_n \rangle - \langle x, y \rangle| &= |\langle x_n - x, y \rangle + \langle x, y_n - y \rangle| \\ &\leq |\langle x_n - x, y \rangle| + |\langle x, y_n - y \rangle| \\ &\leq \|x_n - x\| \|y\| + \|x\| \|y_n - y\| \rightarrow 0 \text{ as } n \rightarrow \infty, \end{aligned} \quad (33)$$

where the second line follows from the triangle inequality and the third line follows from the hypothesis.

- **Thm. (Parallelogram Law)** Let  $\mathcal{H}$  be a Hilbert space; for any  $x, y \in \mathcal{H}$ ,

$$\|x + y\|^2 + \|x - y\|^2 = 2(\|x\|^2 + \|y\|^2).$$

By the properties of the inner product, it is straightforward to see that

$$\begin{aligned} \|x + y\|^2 &= \|x\|^2 + 2\Re \langle x, y \rangle + \|y\|^2 \\ \|x - y\|^2 &= \|x\|^2 - 2\Re \langle x, y \rangle + \|y\|^2. \end{aligned} \quad (34)$$

Adding the two lines yields the conclusion.

- **Rmk. (Polarization Identity)** The parallelogram law is a relation between an inner product and the induced norm. In particular, a normed space  $(\mathcal{H}, \|\cdot\|)$  satisfies the parallelogram if and only if  $\|\cdot\|$  is induced by an inner product on  $\mathcal{H}$ . As such, this identity can be easily used to test whether a space's norm was induced by the inner product (e.g., applying this test to the  $L^p$  spaces shows that only the  $L^2$  norm is induced by an inner product.)
- **Thm. (Pythagorean Theorem)** If  $x_1, \dots, x_n \in \mathcal{H}$  and  $x_j \perp x_k$  for all  $j \neq k$  (in the sense of  $\langle x_j, x_k \rangle = 0$ ), then

$$\left\| \sum_{j=1}^n x_j \right\|^2 = \sum_{j=1}^n \|x_j\|^2.$$

The proof is by straightforward computations. Remembering that  $\langle x_j, x_k \rangle = 0$  for all  $j \neq k$ ,

$$\begin{aligned} \left\| \sum_{j=1}^n x_j \right\|^2 &= \left\langle \sum_{j=1}^n x_j, \sum_{k=1}^n x_k \right\rangle = \sum_{j,k=1}^n \langle x_j, x_k \rangle \\ &= \sum_{j=1}^n \langle x_j, x_j \rangle =: \sum_{j=1}^n \|x_j\|^2. \end{aligned} \quad (35)$$

- **Lem. (Projection Lemma)** Let  $\mathcal{H}$  be a Hilbert space, and  $M$  a closed subspace of  $\mathcal{H}$ . Let  $x \in \mathcal{H}$ . Then there exists a unique  $y_0 \in M$  such that

$$\|x - y_0\| = \inf_{y \in M} \|x - y\|.$$

We will break up the proof of this lemma into an (1) existence and (2) uniqueness segment.

**(Existence)** Construct a sequence  $\{y_j\}_{j=1}^\infty \subset M$  so that  $\|x - y_j\| \rightarrow \inf_{y \in M} \|x - y\|$ . Then we compute

$$\|x - y_j\|^2 + \|x - y_\ell\|^2 = 4 \left\| x - \frac{y_j + y_\ell}{2} \right\|^2 + \|y_j - y_\ell\|^2. \quad (36)$$

Taking  $j, \ell \rightarrow \infty$ , we observe that  $\|y_j - y_\ell\| \rightarrow 0$  so that  $\{y_j\}_{j=1}^\infty$  is a Cauchy sequence. Since  $M$  is a closed subspace of a complete space,  $y_j \rightarrow y_0 \in M$ . Hence,

$$\|x - y_0\| = \lim_{j \rightarrow \infty} \|x - y_j\| = \inf_{y \in M} \|x - y\|. \quad (37)$$

**(Uniqueness)** Suppose there exist  $y_1, y_2 \in M$  so that

$$\|x - y_i\| = \inf_{y \in M} \|x - y\|. \quad (38)$$

- **Thm. (Projecting onto Closed Subspace)** Let  $\mathcal{H}$  be a Hilbert space, and  $M \subseteq \mathcal{H}$  a closed subspace. Define the space

$$M^\perp := \{x \in \mathcal{H} : \langle x, y \rangle = 0, \quad \forall y \in M\}.$$

Then any  $x \in \mathcal{H}$  can be *uniquely* represented as the sum  $x_1 + x_2$ , where  $x_1 \in M$  and  $x_2 \in M^\perp$ . In addition,  $x_1$  and  $x_2$  are the unique elements such that

$$\|x_1 - x\| = \inf_{y \in M} \|x - y\| \quad \text{and} \quad \|x_2 - x\| = \inf_{y \in M^\perp} \|x - y\|. \quad (39)$$

## Lecture 7: $L^p$ Spaces

### Key Topics:

(1)  $L^p$  spaces, (2) Hölder's inequality, (3) Minkowski Inequality, (4)  $L^p$  is a Banach space

### Summary:

In this lecture, we shifted focus towards the  $L^p$  spaces. In particular, we defined the  $L^p$  norm, some important inequalities, and proved that  $L^p$  is a Banach space.

### Lecture:

- **Def. ( $L^p$ -Space)** Let  $(X, \mathcal{M}, \mu)$  be a measure space,  $f$  a measurable function on  $X$  and  $0 < p < \infty$ . Define

$$\|f\|_p = \left( \int_X |f|^p d\mu \right)^{1/p}. \quad (40)$$

Then we define the corresponding  $L^p$ -space to be:

$$L^p(X, \mathcal{M}, \mu) = \left\{ f : X \rightarrow \mathbb{C} : f \text{ measurable and } \|f\|_p < \infty \right\} / \sim, \quad (41)$$

where  $f \sim g$  iff  $f = g$   $\mu$ -a.e. I.e., we define  $L^p$  to be a set of equivalence classes of functions. In the future, if  $(X, \mathcal{M}, \mu)$  is clear, then we will just write  $L^p$ . It is straightforward to check that  $L^p$  is a vector space.

- **Rmk.** Remember that we have not yet shown  $\|\cdot\|_p$  to be a norm on  $L^p$ . The following results will help us determine when  $\|\cdot\|_p$  is indeed a norm.
- **Lem. (Hölder's Lemma)** If  $a, b \geq 0$ ,  $0 < \lambda < 1$ , then

$$a^\lambda b^{1-\lambda} \leq \lambda a + (1-\lambda)b, \quad (42)$$

with equality if and only if  $a = b$ .

The proof is left as an exercise; the proof follows by a simple calculus argument.

- **Thm. (Hölder's Inequality)** Suppose  $1 < p < \infty$  and  $p^{-1} + q^{-1} = 1$ . If  $f$  and  $g$  are both measurable functions on  $X$ , then

$$\|fg\|_1 \leq \|f\|_p \cdot \|g\|_q. \quad (43)$$

Moreover, equality holds if and only if  $\alpha|f|^p = \beta|g|^q$   $\mu$ -a.e for some constants  $\alpha, \beta$ .

If either  $\|f\|_p = 0$  or  $\|g\|_q = 0$ , then the result is trivial. Likewise, if either  $\|f\|_p = \infty$  or  $\|g\|_q = \infty$ , then the result is trivial. On the other hand, if the above inequality holds for some pair  $(f, g)$ , then it surely holds for all scalar multiples of  $f$  and  $g$ . Hence, it suffices to prove the case where  $\|f\|_p = \|g\|_q = 1$ . By Hölder's Lemma, we observe that equality follows iff  $|f|^p = |g|^q$   $\mu$ -a.e. So let  $a = |f(x)|^p$ ,  $b = |g(x)|^q$ , and  $\lambda = p^{-1}$ . Applying Hölder's Lemma,

$$|fg| \leq p^{-1} |f|^p + q^{-1} |g|^q. \quad (44)$$

Integrating both sides, one obtains

$$\|fg\|_1 \leq p^{-1} \|f\|_p + q^{-1} \|g\|_q = p^{-1} + q^{-1} = 1 = \|f\|_p \|g\|_q. \quad (45)$$

Equality holds here iff equality holds in Hölder's lemma; i.e.,  $|f|^p = |g|^q$   $\mu$ -a.e.

- **Thm. (Minkowski Inequality)** For  $1 \leq p < \infty$  and  $f, g \in L^p$ , then  $\|f + g\|_p \leq \|f\|_p + \|g\|_p$ .

If  $p = 1$ , then the result is trivial:

$$\|f + g\|_1 = \int |f + g| \leq \int |f| + |g| = \int |f| + \int |g| = \|f\|_1 + \|g\|_1. \quad (46)$$

Likewise, if  $\|f + g\|_p = 0$ , then the result is trivial for any  $1 \leq p$ . So now assume  $1 < p < \infty$  and  $\|f + g\|_p > 0$ . Then we first write

$$|f + g|^p = |f + g| \cdot |f + g|^{p-1} \leq |f| |f + g|^{p-1} + |g| |f + g|^{p-1}. \quad (47)$$

Integrating both sides,

$$\begin{aligned} \|f + g\|_p^p &\leq \int |f| |f + g|^{p-1} + \int |g| |f + g|^{p-1} \\ &\leq (\|f\|_p + \|g\|_p) \cdot \left( \int_X |f + g|^{(p-1)q} \right)^{1/q} \quad (\text{by Hölder's Inequality}) \\ &= (\|f\|_p + \|g\|_p) \cdot \left( \int_X |f + g|^p \right)^{1/p \cdot p/q} \\ &= (\|f\|_p + \|g\|_p) \cdot \|f + g\|_p^{p/q}. \end{aligned} \quad (48)$$

This implies

$$\|f + g\|_p^{p(1-q^{-1})} \leq (\|f\|_p + \|g\|_p) \iff \|f + g\|_p \leq \|f\|_p + \|g\|_p. \quad (49)$$

Note that Minkowski's inequality implies that  $\|\cdot\|_p$  is a norm for all  $1 \leq p$ . On the other hand, one can show that  $\|\cdot\|_p$  is concave for all  $0 < p < 1$  so that it is definitely not a norm for these  $L^p$  spaces.

- **Thm. ( $L^p$  is Banach)** For  $1 \leq p < \infty$ ,  $L^p$  is a Banach space.

Recall that a normed linear space is Banach if and only if every absolutely convergent series is convergent. Let  $\{f_j\} \subset L^p$  and assume that

$$\sum_1^\infty \|f_j\| = M < \infty. \quad (50)$$

Let  $G_n = \sum_1^n |f_j|$  and  $G = \sum_1^\infty |f_j|$ . By Minkowski's inequality

$$\|G_n\|_p \leq \sum_1^n \|f_j\|_p \leq B < \infty. \quad (51)$$

Hence, by the Monotone Convergence Theorem, we conclude that

$$\int G^p = \lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} \int G_n^p \leq B^p. \quad (52)$$

This means that  $G \in L^p$ . In particular,  $G(x) < \infty$   $\mu$ -a.e. This means that  $\sum_1^\infty f_j(x)$  converges pointwise a.e. Let  $F$  denote this sum. By definition,  $|F| \leq G$  and so  $F \in L^p$ . Moreover,  $|F - \sum_1^n f_j| \leq (2G)^p \in L^1$ . By the Dominated Convergence Theorem, we conclude that

$$\left\| F - \sum_1^n f_j \right\|_p^p = \int \left| F - \sum_1^n f_j \right|^p \rightarrow 0. \quad (53)$$

Hence, the series  $\sum_1^\infty f_j$  converges in  $L^p$ , which completes the proof.

- **Def. (The Space  $L^\infty$ )** Make the definition:

$$L^\infty(X, \mathcal{M}, \mu) := \{f : X \rightarrow \mathbb{C} : f \text{ measurable and } \|f\|_\infty < \infty\} / \sim, \quad (54)$$

where we define

$$\|f\|_\infty := \sup_{x \in X} |f(x)|. \quad (55)$$

- **Cor. (Alternate Definition for  $L^\infty$ -Norm)** The following is true

$$\|f\|_\infty = \inf\{M > 0 : |f(x)| \leq M \text{ } \mu\text{-a.e.}\}. \quad (56)$$

Note that this is the definition officially used in the lectures.

- **Thm. ( $L^\infty$ -Norm)** If  $\mu(X) < \infty$ , then  $\lim_{p \rightarrow \infty} \|f\|_p = \|f\|_\infty$ .

Let  $f$  be a measurable function on  $X$ , and  $\mu$  a finite positive measure on  $X$ . Then

$$\|f\|_p^p = \int_X |f|^p d\mu \leq \int_X \|f\|_\infty^p d\mu = \|f\|_\infty^p \cdot \mu(X) \implies \|f\|_p \leq \|f\|_\infty \cdot \mu(X)^{1/p}. \quad (57)$$

Since  $\mu(X) < \infty$ , taking the limit  $p \rightarrow \infty$ ,  $\mu(X)^{1/p} \rightarrow 1$  so that  $\lim_{p \rightarrow \infty} \|f\|_p \leq \|f\|_\infty$ . It suffices to prove the reverse inequality. For each  $\varepsilon > 0$ , define the set

$$E_\varepsilon = \{x \in X : |f(x)| \geq \|f\|_\infty - \varepsilon\}. \quad (58)$$

By definition of  $\|f\|_\infty$ ,  $\mu(E_\varepsilon) > 0$  for each  $\varepsilon > 0$ . Therefore,

$$\begin{aligned} \|f\|_p^p &= \int_X |f|^p d\mu \\ &\geq \int_{E_\varepsilon} |f|^p d\mu \\ &\geq \int_{E_\varepsilon} (\|f\|_\infty - \varepsilon)^p d\mu \\ &= (\|f\|_\infty - \varepsilon)^p \cdot \mu(E_\varepsilon) \\ \implies \|f\|_p &\geq (\|f\|_\infty - \varepsilon) \cdot \mu(E_\varepsilon)^{1/p}. \end{aligned} \quad (59)$$

Taking the limit  $p \rightarrow \infty$ , one obtains  $\lim_{p \rightarrow \infty} \|f\|_p \geq \|f\|_\infty - \varepsilon$ . Since this is true for all  $\varepsilon > 0$ , we conclude that  $\lim_{p \rightarrow \infty} \|f\|_p \geq \|f\|_\infty$ . Therefore, the proof concludes.



## Lectures 8-10: The Riesz-Representation Theorem and the Radon-Nikodym Theorem

### Key Topics:

- (1) The Riesz-Representation Theorem, (2) Compactness in  $L^p(\mathbb{R}^n)$  and the Kolmogorov-Riesz Theorem, (3) the Generalized Minkowski Inequality

### Summary:

In this lecture, we talked about dual spaces for the  $L^p$  spaces. In particular, we covered the Riesz-Representation Theorem and started proving this theorem via the Radon-Nikodym theorem. Note that the following three lectures are combined due to their connections.

### Lecture:

- **Mot. (Goal of Lectures 8 and 9)** In the following two lectures, our goal is to provide a description of the dual space to  $L^p(X)$  for  $1 < p < \infty$ . Using the Radon-Nikodym Theorem, we will prove the following result:

**Theorem.** (Riesz Representation Theorem for  $L^p$  Spaces) Let  $1 < p < \infty$ , and  $q$  be its conjugate. Then the following are true:

- (i) For each  $\phi \in (L^p)^*$ , there exists a *unique*  $g \in L^q$  so that

$$\phi(f) = \int_X f \cdot g \, d\mu, \quad \forall f \in L^p.$$

- (ii) Let  $(X, \mathcal{M}, \mu)$  be  $\sigma$ -finite. Then for each  $\phi \in (L^1)^*$ , there exists a *unique*  $g \in L^\infty$  so that for all  $f \in L^1$ ,

$$\phi(f) = \int_X f \cdot g \, d\mu.$$

- **Def. (Complex Measures)** Let  $X$  be an arbitrary set, and  $\mathcal{M}$  a  $\sigma$ -algebra on  $X$ . Let  $\nu : \mathcal{M} \rightarrow \mathbb{C}$  be a function satisfying the following properties:

- (1)  $\nu(\emptyset) = 0$ .
- (2) For any disjoint sequence  $\{E_j\}_{j=1}^\infty \subseteq \mathcal{M}$ ,

$$\nu \left( \bigcup_{j=1}^\infty E_j \right) = \sum_{j=1}^\infty \nu(E_j), \quad (60)$$

where the RHS is assumed to converge absolutely.

Then  $\nu$  is a complex measure.

- **Def. (Absolute Continuity of Measures)** Let  $\nu$  be a complex measure and  $\mu$  a *positive* measure on  $(X, \mathcal{M})$ . Then  $\nu$  is said to be absolutely continuous with respect to  $\mu$ , denoted  $\nu \ll \mu$  if and only if  $\mu(E) = 0$  implies  $\nu(E) = 0$ .
- **Thm. (Radon-Nikodym)** Let  $(X, \mathcal{M})$  be a measure space,  $\nu$  a complex measure, and  $\mu$  a  $\sigma$ -finite positive measure so that  $\nu \ll \mu$ . Then there exists a measurable function  $f : X \rightarrow \mathbb{C}$  so that for any  $E \in \mathcal{M}$ ,

$$\nu(E) = \int_X f \, d\mu. \quad (61)$$

$f$  is said to be the Radon-Nikodym derivative of  $\nu$  with respect to  $\mu$ .

- **Lem. (Thm 6.14 from Folland)** Let  $p$  and  $q$  be conjugate exponents. Suppose that  $g$  is a measurable function on  $X$  such that  $fg \in L^1$  for all  $f$  in the space of simple functions that vanish outside a set of finite measure, and the quantity

$$M_q(g) = \sup \left\{ \left| \int fg \right| : f \in \Sigma \text{ and } \|f\|_p = 1 \right\} \quad (62)$$

is finite. Also suppose  $S_g = \{x : g(x) \neq 0\}$  is  $\sigma$ -finite or that  $\mu$  is semifinite. Then  $g \in L^q$  and  $M_q(g) = \|g\|_q$ .

!! Complete Proof Later !!

- **Pf. (Proof of Riesz Representation Theorem)** Now we will use the Radon-Nikodym Theorem to prove the Riesz Representation Theorem. This proof will proceed through several smaller, somewhat simpler, steps.

**(Step 1)** Step 1 consists of proving the Riesz Representation Theorem when  $\mu(X) < \infty$ . The idea is as follows: given  $\phi \in (L^p)^*$ , where  $1 < p < \infty$ , we define  $\nu(E) = \phi(\chi_E)$ , and then show the following are true:

- (1)  $\nu$  defines a complex measure;
- (2)  $\nu \ll \mu$ ;
- (3) use the function  $g$  given by the Radon-Nikodym theorem to establish the theorem.

We will show each of the above is true.

- (1) Let  $\nu$  be defined as follows: for each  $E \in \mathcal{M}$ ,  $\nu(E) = \phi(\chi_E)$ . It is clear to see that  $\nu(\emptyset) = \phi(\chi_\emptyset) = \phi(0) = 0$ . Now, we will show that  $\nu$  is countably additive. Let  $\{E_j\}_{j=1}^n$  be a finite collection of disjoint measurable sets. Then since  $\phi$  is linear

$$\nu\left(\bigcup_1^n E_j\right) = \phi\left(\chi_{\bigcup_1^n E_j}\right) = \phi\left(\sum_1^n \chi(E_j)\right) = \sum_1^n \phi(E_j) = \sum_1^n \nu(E_j). \quad (63)$$

For each positive integer  $n > 0$ , define the sum

$$S_n = \sum_1^n \chi_{E_j} = \chi_{\bigcup_1^n E_j}. \quad (64)$$

We observe that

$$\begin{aligned} \|\chi_{\bigcup_{j>n}^\infty E_j} - S_n\|_p &= \left\| \sum_{j>n} \chi_{E_j} \right\|_p \\ &= \left( \sum_{j>n} \mu(E_j) \right)^{1/p}. \end{aligned} \quad (65)$$

We know that since  $\mu$  is finite,  $\sum_1^\infty \mu(E_j)$  converges. And therefore, the tail of this sum must decay. Hence,

$$\sum_{j>n} \mu(E_j) \longrightarrow 0 \text{ as } n \rightarrow \infty, \quad (66)$$

which proves that  $S_n \rightarrow \chi_{\bigcup_{j>n}^\infty E_j}$  in the  $L^p$ -norm. Since  $\phi$  is continuous, we conclude that

$$\sum_1^\infty \nu(E_j) \longleftarrow \sum_1^n \nu(E_j) = \nu\left(\bigcup_1^n E_j\right) = \phi(\chi_{S_n}) \longrightarrow \phi(\chi_{\bigcup_{j>n}^\infty E_j}) = \nu\left(\bigcup_1^\infty E_j\right). \quad (67)$$

Hence, this concludes the proof that  $\nu$  is a complex measure.

- (2) Let  $E \in \mathcal{M}$  so that  $\mu(E) = 0$ . Since  $\phi$  is a bounded linear functional, there exists some  $C > 0$  so that  $|\phi(f)| \leq C \cdot \|f\|_p$  for all  $f \in L^p$ . In particular,

$$0 \leq |\nu(E)| = |\phi(\chi_E)| \leq C \cdot \|\chi_E\|_p = C \cdot \mu(E)^{1/p} = 0, \quad (68)$$

so that  $\nu(E) = 0$ . Hence,  $\nu \ll \mu$ .

- (3) Since  $\mu(X) < \infty$ ,  $\mu$  is also  $\sigma$ -finite. Hence, by the Radon-Nikodym theorem, there exists some measurable function  $g$  [!! Explain why  $g \in L^1$ ] so that

$$\phi(\chi_E) = \nu(E) = \int_X g \cdot \chi_E \, d\mu. \quad (69)$$

We must prove that  $g \in L^q$ . Let  $\sum_1^n c_j \chi_{E_j}$  be an arbitrary simple function in  $L^p$ . Then since  $\phi$  is a bounded linear functional,

$$\left| \phi \left( \sum_1^n c_j \chi_{E_j} \right) \right| \leq C \cdot \left\| \sum_1^n c_j \chi_{E_j} \right\|_p < \infty. \quad (70)$$

By definition of  $g$ , we must have

$$\left| \int g \cdot \sum_1^n c_j \chi_{E_j} \right| \leq C \cdot \left\| \sum_1^n c_j \chi_{E_j} \right\|_p < \infty. \quad (71)$$

Hence, by Theorem 6.14, we conclude that  $g \in L^q$ . Now since the simple functions are dense in the  $L^p$  spaces, for any function  $f \in L^p$ , there exists a sequence  $\{f_j\}_{j=1}^\infty$  that converges to  $f$  in the  $L^p$ -norm. So by continuity of  $\phi$ ,

$$\phi(f) = \lim_{j \rightarrow \infty} \phi(f_j) = \lim_{j \rightarrow \infty} \int g \cdot f_j \, d\mu = \int g \cdot f \, d\mu. \quad (72)$$

Hence, we conclude that the Riesz Representation Theorem is certainly true if  $X$  is finite.

**(Step 2)** Step 2 consists of extending the finite-case Riesz Representation Theorem to when  $X$  is  $\sigma$ -finite (recall that all finite spaces are  $\sigma$ -finite, but not all  $\sigma$ -finite spaces are finite.)

Consider the sequence  $\{X_n\}_1^\infty \subseteq M$ , where  $X_n \subseteq X_{n+1}$  for each  $n$ ,  $\mu(X_n) < \infty$ , and  $X = \bigcup_1^\infty X_n$ . We begin by considering each  $L^p(X_n, \mathcal{M}, d\mu)$ ; Step 1 proclaims that the Riesz Representation Theorem is true for each such space. Note that for each  $n$ , each  $f \in L^p(X_n, \mathcal{M}, d\mu)$  may be identified with an element  $f \in L^p(X, \mathcal{M}, \mu)$  obtained by extending  $f$  to be zero outside of  $X_n$ . Hence, given  $\phi \in (L^p(X, \mathcal{M}, \mu))^*$ , there exists some  $g_n \in L^q(X_n, \mathcal{M}, \mu)$  for each  $n$  so that

$$\phi(f) = \int_X f \cdot g_n \, d\mu, \quad \forall f \in L^p(X_n, \mathcal{M}, \mu). \quad (73)$$

Observe that if  $X_n \subseteq X_m$ , then by uniqueness of the Radon-Nikodym derivative,  $g_n = g_m$   $\mu$ -a.e. on  $X_n$ . Therefore, we can obtain a measurable function  $g$  by considering each  $g_n$  to be a function on  $X$  by extending  $g_n$  to be zero outside of each  $X_n$  and defining the function  $g$  as follows:

$$g(x) = g_n(x), \quad \text{for any } n \text{ such that } x \in X_n; \quad (74)$$

$g$  is well-defined precisely because of the uniqueness clause.  $g$  satisfies the following property:

$$\phi(f) = \int_X f \cdot g \, d\mu, \quad \forall f \in L^p(X_n, \mathcal{M}, \mu) \text{ for some } n. \quad (75)$$

There remain just two things to be seen:

- (1)  $g \in L^q(X, \mathcal{M}, \mu)$ ,
- (2)  $\bigcup_1^\infty L^p(X_n, \mathcal{M}, \mu)$  is dense in  $L^p(X, \mathcal{M}, \mu)$ .

Since  $\phi$  is bounded on all of  $L^p(X)$ , there exists  $C > 0$  so that

$$\left| \int_X f \cdot g \, d\mu \right| \leq C \|f\|_p, \quad \forall f \in L^p(X). \quad (76)$$

In particular, this holds for all simple functions  $f$  with finite support in some  $X_n$ , so that by Theorem 6.14,  $g \in L^q(X)$ . Now we will show that (2) is true. Fix  $f \in L^p(X, \mathcal{M}, \mu)$  and consider the sequence  $\{f_n\}_{n=1}^\infty \subset \bigcup^\infty L^p(X_n, \mathcal{M}, \mu)$ , where for each  $n$ ,  $f_n \in L^p(X_n, \mathcal{M}, \mu)$  and  $f_n = f \cdot \chi_{X_n}$ . Then

$$\|f_n - f\|_p^p = \int_{X \setminus X_n} |f|^p \, d\mu. \quad (77)$$

Since  $X \setminus X_n \rightarrow \emptyset$  and  $|f|^p \in L^1$ , by the Monotone Convergence Theorem,  $\|f_n - f\|_p \rightarrow 0$ . Hence, since  $\{f_n\}_1^\infty \rightarrow f$  in the  $L^p$ -norm, we conclude that  $\bigcup^\infty L^p(X_n, \mathcal{M}, \mu)$  is dense in  $L^p(X, \mathcal{M}, \mu)$ . Hence, by repeating the density argument used at the end of Step 1, we conclude that the Riesz Representation Theorem holds for all  $\sigma$ -finite spaces.

**(Step 3)** Now we will completely generalize the argument, and remove our assumption of  $\sigma$ -finiteness.

Let  $1 < p < \infty$ , and let  $E \subset X$  be a  $\sigma$ -finite set. Let  $\phi \in (L^p(X))^*$ . By Step 2, there exists a unique  $g_E \in L^q(E)$  such that

- (1)  $\phi(f) = \int f \cdot g_E \, d\mu$  for all  $f \in L^p(E)$  and  $\|g_E\|_q \leq \|\phi\|$ ,
- (2) if  $F$  is  $\sigma$ -finite and  $E \subseteq F$ , then by uniqueness of the Radon-Nikodym derivative,  $g_E = g_F$   $\mu$ -a.e. on  $E$ . In particular,  $\|g_E\|_q \leq \|g_F\|_q$ .